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Computational Game Theory (COM810S)

## Paper Review

### **An Evolutionary Dynamical Analysis of Multi-Agent Learning in Iterated Games**

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# 1 Summary of the Paper

## 1.1 The Problem Being Addressed

This paper addresses a fundamental challenge in multi-agent systems, which is how to ensure that multiple reinforcement learning agents collectively converge to desirable Nash Equilibria when each agent is learning independently and simultaneously. The difficulty arises because multi-agent environments are inherently non-stationary. As each agent updates its strategy in response to experience, the environment shifts for all other agents at the same time. This violates the Markov property, which is a foundational assumption of standard reinforcement learning theory, and as a result the convergence guarantees that make algorithms like Q-learning reliable in single-agent settings no longer hold in multi-agent settings.

Prior approaches to this problem were inadequate in different ways. Independent learners treated other agents as environmental noise, which made coordination impossible in tasks requiring joint action. Joint action learners tracked the full space of possible strategy combinations across all agents, but this caused the state space to grow exponentially with the number of agents, making the approach computationally infeasible at any realistic scale. Beyond these architectural limitations, practitioners faced the persistent problem of setting Q-learning’s temperature parameter  $\tau$  correctly. The temperature parameter governs the balance between exploration of new strategies and exploitation of known good ones, and selecting an appropriate value had no principled basis. Developers were left to discover suitable values through costly trial-and-error experimentation with no analytical tool to guide them.

## 1.2 The Main Contribution

The central contribution of this paper is a formal mathematical proof that Q-learning, when using Boltzmann action selection and considered in a continuous time limit, is dynamically equivalent to the Replicator Dynamics from evolutionary game theory. The Replicator Dynamics are a well-studied set of differential equations that describe how the proportion of a population using each strategy changes over time. Strategies that perform above the population average grow in proportion while strategies that perform below average shrink. The authors show that Q-learning agents follow exactly this same mathematical pattern.

The derivation shows that the continuous time dynamics of Q-learning decompose into two distinct terms. The first term is exactly the asymmetric Replicator Dynamic, which captures the selection mechanism where agents increasingly favour strategies that yield above-average rewards. The second term is an entropy-based mutation term, which captures the exploration behaviour of Q-learning agents. This decomposition is signifi-

cant because it establishes a precise correspondence between two concepts from separate fields. Selection in evolutionary game theory corresponds to exploitation in reinforcement learning, and mutation corresponds to exploration. This unifies two independently developed frameworks under a single mathematical structure.

The novelty of this result lies in its extension beyond the work of Börgers and Sarin [1997], who had previously established a similar connection but only for Cross Learning. Cross Learning is a simple psychologically motivated model with limited practical relevance. Q-learning is one of the most widely used reinforcement learning algorithms in real systems, so extending the connection to Q-learning makes the result directly applicable to practical multi-agent deployments. Once the evolutionary dynamics are derived for a specific problem, direction field plots can be constructed analytically. These plots show where agents will drift from any starting configuration, which stable Nash Equilibria they will converge to, and what value of the temperature parameter  $\tau$  is needed to achieve reliable convergence. This transforms parameter selection from a guessing process into a mathematically grounded analysis.

### 1.3 Experimental and Theoretical Results

The authors validate their framework across three structurally distinct classes of two-player two-action games. The first is the Prisoner’s Dilemma, which is a Class 1 game where both players have a dominant strategy. The evolutionary equations predict that agents should converge to the Nash Equilibrium of mutual defection when  $\tau$  is sufficiently large. The experiments confirm this and show that learning trajectories under  $\tau = 10$  closely follow the predicted direction fields, while lower values of  $\tau$  produce diffuse dynamics that fail to converge to any Nash Equilibrium.

The second game is the Battle of the Sexes, which is a Class 2 game with two pure Nash Equilibria and one unstable mixed Nash Equilibrium. The framework correctly predicts that agents will converge to one of the two pure equilibria depending on their initial conditions and that the mixed Nash Equilibrium will never emerge in practice because it is asymptotically unstable. The experiments confirm both predictions. The third game class has a unique interior mixed Nash Equilibrium and the framework predicts closed orbital trajectories around this equilibrium rather than convergence to it. The Q-learning experiments confirm this distinctive behaviour, which demonstrates that the framework captures qualitatively different dynamical regimes accurately across all three game classes.

The framework is then applied to Dispersion Games, which model the load balancing problem where agents must distribute themselves across distinct resources to maximise collective utility. The evolutionary analysis correctly identifies the stable pure Nash Equilibria and the unstable mixed Nash Equilibrium of this system, and all twenty-five

experimental starting configurations converge to the stable equilibria as predicted.

In the final section the authors apply their evolutionary dynamics framework to analyse the COLlective INTelligence framework known as COIN [Wolpert et al., 1998]. They demonstrate analytically why the Wonderful Life Utility reward function in COIN outperforms standard Q-learning by examining how the WLU modifies the direction field of the learning dynamics. They then propose WLUM, a modified version of WLU that breaks the symmetric penalty structure of the original by rewarding the agent with the highest Q-value for a contested task while penalising all competing agents. Experiments with 2500 agents show that WLUM converges to near-optimal task allocation substantially faster than both standard Q-learning and the original WLU, which demonstrates that the evolutionary dynamics framework can actively guide reward engineering in large-scale multi-agent systems.

## 2 Related Work

The paper’s contribution sits at the intersection of evolutionary game theory, reinforcement learning, and multi-agent systems, and it engages with prior work across all three areas.

The evolutionary game theory foundations the paper builds on trace back to Maynard Smith and Price [1973], who introduced the concept of the Evolutionarily Stable Strategy. An Evolutionarily Stable Strategy is a strategy that, once adopted by the majority of a population, cannot be displaced by any invading mutant strategy. Hofbauer and Sigmund [1998] later established the key mathematical results connecting Evolutionarily Stable Strategies to Nash Equilibria and to the asymptotic stability of the Replicator Dynamics. The paper applies these results correctly, using them to interpret the attractors of the derived Q-learning dynamics and to identify which Nash Equilibria are asymptotically stable and which are not. One aspect the paper does not address is that the Replicator Dynamics assume an infinitely large and well-mixed population, whereas the multi-agent systems the paper studies involve a finite number of discrete agents. This gap between the theoretical assumption and the practical setting is not discussed, which limits the precision of the framework’s applicability claims.

The most direct predecessor to the main contribution is the result of Börgers and Sarin [1997], who proved that Cross Learning converges to the asymmetric continuous time Replicator Dynamics in an appropriately constructed continuous time limit. The present paper takes that result and extends it to Q-learning, which is structurally more complex because it incorporates Q-value estimation, discount factors, and Boltzmann action selection. The derivation required to handle these features represents a genuine technical contribution beyond what Börgers and Sarin [1997] established. The paper also connects Cross Learning to the Learning Automata framework developed by Narendra

and Thathachar [1974], showing that Cross Learning is a special case of that broader framework under specific parameter conditions. This situates the Borghers and Sarin result within a wider learning-theoretic context and clarifies the relationships between these different models.

On the multi-agent reinforcement learning side the paper accurately characterises the failure modes of the two dominant prior approaches. Independent learning fails because agents treat the adaptive behaviour of other agents as noise, which makes principled coordination impossible. Joint action learning fails because the joint state-action space grows exponentially with the number of agents, contradicting the principles of distributed asynchronous multi-agent systems. The paper positions its contribution not as a replacement for these learning architectures but as an analytical framework that allows developers to understand and configure existing algorithms like Q-learning more effectively. This is a meaningful distinction because it means the evolutionary dynamics analysis can be applied to systems that are already in use.

The COIN framework developed by Wolpert et al. [1998] is the most substantively engaged piece of related work in the cooperative learning section. COIN addresses the alignment problem between individual agent incentives and collective system performance by engineering individual reward functions. The paper goes beyond merely citing COIN and uses the evolutionary dynamics framework to explain analytically why the Wonderful Life Utility reward function shifts the learning dynamics in favour of task separation and against task competition. It then identifies the specific structural property of WLU that limits convergence speed, which is the symmetric penalty applied to all competing agents regardless of their relative fitness for a task. The WLUM proposal follows directly from this analysis, which makes the engagement with prior work genuinely productive rather than merely descriptive. The coordination graphs approach of Guestrin et al. [2003] is also acknowledged as a related method for introducing structured incentives into multi-agent systems, which situates WLUM appropriately within the broader reward engineering literature.

There are notable gaps in the related work coverage. Fictitious play and its variants, which are classical game-theoretic learning dynamics with known convergence properties in certain game classes, are not discussed despite being a natural comparison point for any paper on learning dynamics and Nash Equilibrium convergence. No-regret learning algorithms and their theoretical connections to Nash Equilibria in repeated games are also absent. These omissions do not invalidate the paper’s core result but they do limit how precisely the contribution can be situated within the full landscape of game-theoretic learning research.

### 3 Limitations of the Paper

The paper presents a well-supported theoretical and empirical contribution, but several limitations constrain the generality and completeness of its claims.

The most significant theoretical limitation concerns the scope of the derivation. The evolutionary dynamics of Q-learning are derived specifically for two-player normal-form games with finite pure strategy sets. Many practically relevant multi-agent problems involve extensive-form games with sequential decision-making, settings with partial observability where agents cannot observe each other’s strategies, or environments with continuous action spaces. The paper does not analyse whether the derived Replicator Dynamics approximation remains valid for Q-learning in any of these more complex game structures. Because the normal-form game assumption is a substantial simplification, the extent to which the direction field analysis and the Nash Equilibrium convergence predictions generalise beyond this setting is left as an open question.

A second limitation concerns the continuous time approximation on which the main theoretical result depends. The equivalence between Q-learning and the Replicator Dynamics holds in the limit where learning step sizes approach zero and each time interval contains many game iterations. The paper acknowledges that this continuous time result does not extend to the asymptotic behaviour of discrete time Q-learning, meaning that over sufficiently long time horizons the actual behaviour of Q-learning agents can diverge from what the evolutionary dynamics predict. However the paper does not specify how large a learning step size can be before the approximation breaks down in practice. This leaves practitioners without clear guidance on the conditions under which the evolutionary analysis reliably predicts real Q-learning behaviour.

The experimental evaluation, while internally consistent and carefully designed, is limited in its scope. All game-theoretic validation is conducted on  $2 \times 2$  normal-form games, which are the smallest possible instances that exhibit the relevant dynamical phenomena. Although these games cover all three structural classes of normal-form games, testing only on minimal instances makes it difficult to assess whether the analytical tools scale gracefully as the number of players or the size of the strategy space increases. The COIN experiments do scale to 2500 agents but the action space remains binary throughout, so the scalability is demonstrated in only one dimension at a time. Scaling both the number of agents and the size of the strategy space simultaneously is not explored.

The WLUM extension, while empirically effective, introduces a communication requirement that the paper does not fully address. WLUM requires competing agents to share their Q-values for contested tasks so that the system can identify which agent should receive the reward and which should be penalised. Although the paper argues that this constitutes only local information sharing rather than global system knowledge, in large systems where many agents simultaneously compete for the same task the overhead of

coordinating this information exchange could be significant, particularly in asynchronous distributed systems. A more careful analysis of the communication complexity of WLUM relative to its convergence benefits would have strengthened the practical case for its adoption.

Finally the experimental comparisons are restricted to Q-learning variants within the COIN framework. The paper does not compare its results against other multi-agent learning algorithms with established convergence properties such as fictitious play or the algorithms evaluated by Powers and Shoham [2004] using the GAMUT framework, which the paper itself identifies as an important direction for future work. Without these comparisons it is difficult to determine whether the performance improvements shown by WLUM and the evolutionary dynamics framework hold against a broader set of alternative approaches or whether they are specific to the Q-learning baseline that was chosen for evaluation.

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